

Developing and validating a multidimensional nonprofit brand orientation scale

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Abstract

Operating in a progressively more competitive and turbulent environment, nonprofit organizations are beginning to recognize the need to become more “businesslike” and of the value of marketing in achieving a competitive advantage. Whilst marketing alone is not purported to be a “quick-fix” elixir in this regard, it does have the potential to make a useful and ongoing contribution to organizational performance in the nonprofit sector. Indeed, marketing scholars have for some time now been examining the role, function, relevance and transferability of various marketing principles and practices to nonprofit organizations. Surprisingly, the concept of brand management has been largely overlooked in this process. Using Keller’s [Harv. Bus. Rev. 78 (2000) 147] brand report card (BRC) as a point of departure, this article describes the development of a reliable, valid and generalizable multidimensional scale to assess nonprofit brand orientation (NBO). Findings from two empirical surveys are presented, conclusions drawn and future research directions outlined.

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1. Introduction

Marketing scholars have long recognized the potential transferability of key concepts and philosophies to the nonprofit sector (Kotler and Levy, 1969). Advertising effects, market orientation and relationship marketing in nonprofit organizations have been among the issues recently examined by researchers in this field (Caruana et al., 1998; Marchand and Lavoie, 1998; Voss and Voss, 2000). Yet, despite the utility of marketing both conceptually and functionally, researchers have also cautioned against the overadoption of marketing in nontraditional settings (see, e.g., Hutton, 2001). In general, however, marketing has gained acceptance among the nonprofit practitioner community (Sargeant, 2001). It is therefore a little surprising that the efficacy of brand management in nonprofit organizations has received only scant attention—particularly since the conceptual development of brand management

in the for-profit sector has progressed rapidly since the latter part of the 19th century (Low and Fullerton, 1994). In an attempt to address this gap in the literature, the present study focuses on the development of a scale to capture the nuances of branding practices and philosophies within this sector. The psychometric properties of the resulting “nonprofit brand orientation scale” (NBOS) are then assessed. The paper commences with a review of the extant literature on branding in the nonprofit sector. It then describes the scale development process adopted and details the procedure for assessing the reliability, validity and generalizability of NBOS. Managerial implications and applications of the scale are addressed before concluding with limitations of the approach and directions for ongoing research.

2. Branding in the nonprofit sector

In any competitive marketplace, an organization’s long-term survival will depend on its ability to sustain an adequate level of profitability. This is equally true for both profit and nonprofit organizations, albeit not always the primary motivator for the latter. Nonprofit organizations form an integral

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and relatively large sector of many economies. By way of example, there are approximately 1.3 million tax-exempt organizations in the United States, of which nearly 700,000 are public charities and the remainder comprising such institutions as private schools, foundations, hospitals and religious organizations (Lowell et al., 2001). With the nonprofit “marketplace” becoming more competitive and resources becoming increasingly scarce (Lindenberg, 1999), the principle focus for many nonprofit managers is toward attracting and raising funds and establishing viable partnerships with others (Lowell et al., 2001). It is not surprising that many nonprofits are well aware of the role marketing can play in achieving such objectives (Rees, 1998).

Although brands and their management have been well entrenched in the commercial sector for over a century (Low and Fullerton, 1994), it is only in recent years that researchers have begun to investigate the salience of brand management within a nonprofit context. Scholarly research efforts to date, however, have been either conceptual or exploratory. Saxton (1994), for instance, uses case examples, personal experience and anecdotal evidence to describe the importance of, and processes involved in, the creation of strong charity brands. Such contributions are important as they delineate the differences between managing for-profit versus nonprofit brands. Likewise, Tapp (1996) examines the extent to which branding theories and models developed for the commercial sector are adaptable to the charity sector, drawing the conclusion that nonprofit organizations have much to gain by adopting some of these practices. Some empirical research has also been undertaken. Several researchers have reported a relationship between stakeholder attitudes toward a charity and their donating behavior, with higher levels of contribution attributed to those individuals with a more positive attitude (Bendapudi et al., 1996; Harvey, 1990; Webb et al., 2000). Implicitly, these findings suggest that brand image plays an important role in shaping stakeholder attitudes and actions. As such, creating a suitable brand identity is becoming as important for nonprofit organizations as it is for their commercial counterparts and involves, amongst other activities, giving consideration to a brand’s functional elements as well as its symbolic components (Tapp, 1996). Efforts should be directed toward building brand trust, aligning a brand’s identity with the inherent psychological needs and desires of potential donors and communicating these points of difference to stakeholders (Saxton, 1994; Tapp, 1996). In so doing, an organization is better able to use its brand to communicate its organizational values to stakeholders (Tapp, 1996), change public opinion (Lindsay and Murphy, 1996), build donor trust (Tonkiss and Passey, 1999), achieve its objectives (Graham et al., 1994; Hankinson, 2002; Simoes and Dibb, 2001) and also attract a higher proportion of voluntary income (Hankinson, 2001). In spite of the potential benefits, however, brands still remain a largely underutilized strategic asset within the nonprofit sector (Tapp, 1996).

Cognizant of the importance of branding to the nonprofit sector, Hankinson (2001, 2002) provides interpretive

insights into brand orientation within the charity sector. Her contribution marks one of the first attempts to assess brand orientation for charity organizations and to gauge its impact on performance. Hankinson (2001) defines brand-oriented organizations as those who regard the organization as a brand and whose actions and attitudes are consistent with the brand construct. In this capacity, organizational actions are directed toward the development, acquisition and leveraging of branded products and services in the pursuit of competitive advantage (Noble et al., 2002; Urde, 1994, 1999). Adopting such a philosophy enables organizations to become more adept at achieving positive performance outcomes (Hankinson, 2001; Noble et al., 2002).

Whilst pursuing a brand orientation is intuitively logical, it also has strong theoretical support. Clark and Marshall’s (1981) theory of mutual knowledge explains how individuals come to believe with great certainty that both they and another share the same knowledge, beliefs or information regarding an object. From a brand management perspective, brands are likely to be more successful when an audience’s perception of a brand mirrors the firm’s view of the brand concept and both are identical to the consumers’ original specifications (Haynes et al., 1999). One of the primary functions of brand management, then, is to create, coordinate, monitor and adjust interactions between an organization and its stakeholders (Schultz and Barnes, 1999), such that there is consistency between an organization’s brand vision and stakeholders’ brand beliefs. On this basis, a brand-oriented organization is better able to establish and maintain mutual brand knowledge and thereby enhance organizational performance.

While marketing scholars continue to expand the domain of nonprofit marketing, most brand-related studies have focused on a single nonprofit sector (Hankinson, 2002; Saxton, 1994; Tapp, 1996). Hankinson (2001, 2002) has, however, provided a useful foundation on which to conceptualize brand orientation in the nonprofit sector as a whole. The present study expands on her work by seeking to develop a psychometrically robust and generalizable measure of nonprofit brand orientation (NBO). We define NBO as the organizational wide process of generating and sustaining a shared sense of brand meaning that provides superior value to stakeholders and superior performance to the organization. Accordingly, NBO reflects an organization’s focus on the internal and external activities necessary to build and sustain strong brands in the marketplace. Such a philosophy can assist an organization in establishing mutual brand knowledge with stakeholders and realizing the benefits that a strong brand can deliver.

3. The brand orientation construct

Researchers have viewed brand management from several different perspectives. Some have taken a broad overview of

the brand management process (Kapferer, 2001; Keller, 1998; Park et al., 1986), while others have focused on specific elements. These can be grouped into four distinct themes: creating a unique brand identity, structuring brand portfolios, managing brand communications and monitoring brand value (Aaker, 1991; Berthon et al., 1999; de Chernatony and Riley, 1998; Keller, 2000). By focusing on each of these aspects, an organization is able to effectively monitor consumers' brand perceptions, identify whether such brand attitudes confer with their own brand vision and instigate strategies that reinforce positive brand beliefs or change negative perceptions. Future growth opportunities can also be identified and estimations made of the relative value of a brand in the minds of consumers. In so doing, organizations can create brands that truly resonate with stakeholders and deliver to them the tangible and intangible benefits they desire. Ultimately, this will lead to the development of stronger brands and an improvement in organizational performance. Although developed in the context of for-profit organizations, we argue that such principles are equally applicable to the nonprofit sector. We also contend that these antecedents are broadly captured in Keller's (2000) brand report card (BRC).

4. Toward the development of NBOS

Scale items were generated for this study by following a deductive approach (Schwab, 1980). Keller's (2000) BRC, which consolidates many of the varying perspectives on brand management and encapsulates the key dimensions of the construct, was used to generate a total of 37 scale items. These were then assessed for face validity by two marketing academics, which resulted in only minor modifications being made to item wording. The second stage of the purification process involved undertaking three focus group interviews. Senior managers representing a broad cross section of Australian nonprofit organizations, including charities, education, health and social service organizations, participated in the sessions. Each session consisted of between 10 and 12 participants and lasted for approximately 1.5 hours. Participants were provided with a list of the refined scale items and were requested to comment on the relevance of each statement to their organization. Furthermore, they were questioned in relation to whether they understood the specific terms used within, and the intended meaning of each statement. Information was also obtained regarding key performance measures used within their respective organizations. Through this process, seven brand orientation items were identified as irrelevant to nonprofit organizations and were subsequently discarded. Minor adjustment to the wording of some statements was also required to remove unfamiliar marketing jargon (e.g., "brand equity," "push and pull strategies," "points of parity") and replace the term "customer" with "stakeholder" (to avoid potential confusion in attempting

to differentiate between "recipients" and "donors" as "customers"). The remaining 30 statements formed the pool of items from which NBOS would be constructed. Each item was placed on a 7-point Likert-type scale and respondents were asked to rate the extent to which their organization currently engaged in the activity described. A response of 1 reflected *to a very little extent*, and 7, *to a very great extent*. NBOS also included two subjective measures of performance, 14 items measuring market orientation (Narver and Slater, 1990) and several classificatory variables.

5. Sample

Nonprofit sectors were selected based on 12 categories defined in the International Classification of Non Profit Organizations (ICNPO) (Sargeant, 1999). Using the Standard Industry Classification (SIC) codes, the "industries" that most closely resembled each of the ICNPO categories were selected. The sample frames used in this study were composed of Dun and Bradstreet's *Business Who's Who of Australia* and a listing of Australian charities provided by Action Mailing Lists. Australian nonprofit organizations within each sector were then identified through a simple random sampling technique. In line with Churchill's (1979) recommendation, NBO was administered to two separate samples. The data collected from Sample 1 were used to purify the measure and data from Sample 2 to confirm the factor structure and assess validity.

6. Results

Data was collected from the Chief Executive Officer (or equivalent) of each organization via a mail survey. In total, 1300 questionnaires were distributed to Australian nonprofit organizations in Sample 1. One hundred ten questionnaires were returned unopened and a further 29 surveys could not be used in the analysis as they were either incomplete or were returned from organizations classified as private hospitals. As a result, 233 usable questionnaires were obtained from Sample 1, which represents an effective response rate of 19.2%. Following purification of scale items, the questionnaire was then administered to a second sample, consisting of 1000 organizations. With the second sample, 168 questionnaires were returned unopened and 15 responses were received from commercial organizations (i.e., private hospitals). A further 6 surveys could not be used due to incomplete responses. This resulted in 170 usable questionnaires being obtained from Sample 2, representing an effective response rate of 20.9%. These figures are consistent with response rates reported in other marketing studies (Cannon and Perreault, 1999; Joshi and Campbell, 2003) and those that have used commercial databases (Maignan and Ferrell, 2001). A profile of re-

Table 1
Organization characteristics

	Sample 1 (N = 233)	Sample 2 (N = 170)
<i>Type of NP (%)</i>		
Educational/research institution	28	25
Professional association	15	15
Social service organization	13	11
Cultural/recreational service provider	12	12
Public health institution	7	9
Other	25	28
<i>Annual revenue (%)</i>		
Less than A\$1 million	30	31
Between A\$1.1 and \$2.5 million	20	13
Between A\$2.6 and \$7 million	25	24
More than A\$7.1 million	25	32
<i>Number employees (%)</i>		
Less than 20 people	35	35
21–100 people	32	29
More than 100 people	33	36
<i>Job title (%)</i>		
CEO/Director	46	41
Principal (education)	14	8
Manager	25	40
Other	15	11

spondent organizations from each sample is presented in Table 1.

7. Nonresponse bias

Armstrong and Overton's (1977) procedure was used to assess for nonresponse bias. This technique is based on the assumption that late respondents are similar to the "theoretical" nonrespondent. If no significant differences are observed between early and late respondents, it can be assumed that nonrespondents are similar to survey participants and the effects of nonresponse bias minimal (Armstrong and Overton, 1977). Using data from Sample 1, an independent samples *t* test was used to compare responses along the 30 brand orientation items between early and late respondents, which were represented by the 1st and 4th quartiles, respectively. This process was repeated for Sample 2. Results for both samples indicated that there were no significant differences between early and late respondents. As such, it can be assumed that the probability of nonresponse bias is minimal.

8. Purification and reliability

The first stage of scale purification involved the entire 30-item instrument from Sample 1 undergoing the computation of coefficient alpha (Cronbach, 1951). From the results of the first phase of the reliability analysis, all items

Table 2
Reliability analysis of purified 16-item NBOS

Item	Item mean	Corrected item–total correlation	Alpha if item deleted
Q2 Focus on creating a positive product/service experience for our stakeholders	5.97	.5570	.9144
Q3 Have a system in place for getting stakeholders' comments to the people who can instigate change	4.91	.5444	.9142
Q4 Invest adequate resources in product/service improvements that provide better value to our stakeholders	4.69	.5636	.9137
Q5 Keep "in touch" with our stakeholders' needs	5.15	.6712	.9109
Q6 Keep "in touch" with current market conditions	5.12	.5548	.9140
Q9 ^a Have a system in place to monitor stakeholders' perceptions of the brand	4.16	.6163	.9123
Q12 Develop marketing programs that send consistent messages about our brand to our stakeholders	4.93	.6388	.9115
Q16 Create a brand/subbrand structure that is well thought out and understood by our staff	4.28	.5257	.9151
Q18 Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage consumers directly to use our products/services	4.49	.5690	.9137
Q19 Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage our suppliers, distributors and other key stakeholders to promote our products/services to consumers	3.84	.5874	.9133
Q20 Ensure that managers within the organization are aware of all of the marketing activities that involve the brand	4.63	.6701	.9105
Q21 ^a Ensure that the meaning of the brand is consistently represented in all marketing communication activities	4.94	.6065	.9125
Q22 Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders <i>dislike</i> about the brand	3.56	.6453	.9113
Q23 Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders <i>like</i> about the brand	4.11	.6950	.9097
Q24 ^a Develop a good understanding of the images/associations that our stakeholders make with the brand	4.12	.7329	.9087
Q26 ^a Develop a good understanding of the successes and failures of our brand's marketing program before it is changed	3.88	.6539	.9110

Alpha=.9174.

^a Ultimately deleted from final 12-item instrument.

with a corrected item-to-total correlation of less than .40 were eliminated, resulting in the removal of seven items: 7, 8, 13, 15, 27, 28 and 29. In the second phase of scale purification, items with a corrected item-to-total correlation of less than .50 were eliminated, resulting in the purging of a further seven items: 1, 10, 11, 14, 17, 25 and 30. The alpha for the final 16-item scale=.9174. From Table 2, it is evident that all of the items contribute to the internal consistency of the scale. Generally, scales are regarded as reliable for commercial purposes if the alpha coefficient exceeds .7 (Carman, 1990), so it can be accepted that NBOS is a potentially reliable measure of nonprofit brand orientation.

9. Exploratory factor analysis

Data from Sample 1 (16 items; $n=224$) was subjected to principal component analysis with varimax rotation. Factor extraction according to the MINEIGEN criterion (i.e., all factors with eigenvalues >1) was employed. The analysis produced a three-factor solution. However, several items (9, 21, 24 and 26) loaded on multiple factors. These were subsequently removed from the analysis. The final three-factor solution, which accounts for 66% of the variation in the data, is shown in Table 3. From the rotated factor matrix it can be seen that Items 2–6 load on Factor 1, items 12, 16,

18, 19 and 20 load on Factor 2 and Items 22 and 23 load on Factor 3.

Factor 1, labeled “interaction,” assesses the extent to which an organization establishes a dialogue with key stakeholders and responds to changes in the environment. It captures the degree to which an organization uses market feedback to create and deliver superior value to stakeholders. This provides an indication of their level of responsiveness to changes in market conditions and stakeholder needs. Factor 2, labeled “orchestration,” assesses the degree to which the brand portfolio and related marketing activities are suitably structured and effectively communicated to both internal and external stakeholders. It measures an organization’s ability to implement integrated marketing communications activities that deliver consistent messages to stakeholders. Finally, Factor 3, labeled “affect,” assesses the degree to which an organization understands the extent to which they are liked/disliked by key stakeholders and more specifically, exactly what about the organization is most liked/disliked and why. In the advertising response literature, for example, there is an impressive body of evidence underpinning the salience of likability (see Biel and Bridgwater, 1990; Du Plessis, 1994, for a detailed discussion) and its ability to predict attitudes towards the ad/brand/product, and more importantly, actual past behavior and intended future behavior. Thus, “stakeholder likability” is a salient antecedent to nonprofit brand performance.

Table 3
Exploratory factor analysis of NBO items

Component	Initial eigenvalues			Extraction sums of squared loadings			Rotation sums of squared loadings		
	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %
1	5.386	44.88	44.88	3.386	44.88	44.88	3.023	25.20	25.20
2	1.52	12.71	57.59	1.52	12.71	57.59	2.984	24.86	50.06
3	1.01	8.38	65.97	1.01	8.38	65.97	1.91	15.92	65.97

Rotated component matrix

	Component		
	1	2	3
Q4. Invest adequate resources in product/service improvements that provide better value to our stakeholders	.782		
Q5. Keep “in touch” with our stakeholders’ needs	.770		
Q2. Focus on creating a positive product/service experience for our stakeholders	.747		
Q6. Keep “in touch” with current market conditions	.702		
Q3. Have a system in place for getting stakeholders’ comments to the people who can instigate change	.657		
Q18. Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage consumers directly to use our products/services		.813	
Q19. Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage our suppliers, distributors and other key stakeholders to promote our products/services to consumers		.763	
Q20. Ensure that managers within the organization are aware of all of the marketing activities that involve the brand		.730	
Q12. Develop marketing programs that send consistent messages about our brand to our stakeholders		.670	
Q16. Create a brand/subbrand structure that is well thought out and understood by our staff		.642	
Q22. Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders <i>dislike</i> about the brand			.870
Q23. Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders <i>like</i> about the brand			.824

Extraction method: principal component analysis; rotation method.

Varimax with Kaiser normalization.

Rotation converged in eight iterations (for clarity of interpretation, factor loadings $<.6$ are suppressed).

10. Confirmatory factor analysis

Using Sample 2, structural equation modeling (SEM) was used to perform a confirmatory factor analysis on the proposed model, which consisted of a first-order, three-factor structure. Specifically, the model comprised three latent variables (interaction, orchestration and affect), with the observed variables loading in accordance with the pattern revealed in the exploratory factor analysis on Sample 1 (see Fig. 1).

There are several tests to ascertain whether an SEM model fits the observed data. The chi-square statistic (χ^2) provides a measure of how well the model fits the data, with a nonsignificant χ^2 supporting the null hypothesis that the model is a good fit to the data. Overall goodness of fit for a model can also be assessed by three additional indices: the root mean residual (RMR), adjusted goodness-of-fit index (AGFI) and comparative fit index (CFI). A model is regarded as having an acceptable fit if the RMR is less than .10, AGFI exceeds .8 and CFI is greater than .9 (Bentler, 1990). The results for the three factor NBO model indicate a $\chi^2 = 58.69$ ($df = 51$, $P = .214$), RMR = .093, AGFI = .917 and CFI = .992. Based on the criteria proposed by Bentler (1990), the three-dimensional model produces an acceptable fit to the data and confirms the underlying structure of NBOS.

11. Psychometric properties of NBOS

11.1. Reliability of NBOS

The reliability of NBOS was further examined by assessing the composite reliability and variance extracted scores (Hair et al., 1998). It is recommended that the variance extracted score be $>.50$ and composite reliability statistic $>.7$ (Carmines and Zeller, 1988; Fornell and Larcker, 1981). Values were calculated for each of the factors and as can be seen in Table 4, the results attest to the internal consistency of the instrument.

Table 4

Reliability and validity assessment for NBO scale

Interaction		Orchestration		Affect	
CR	AVE	CR	AVE	CR	AVE
.76	.51	.83	.60	.91	.84
(Corr) ²		CV		DV	
.42, .43, .52		Yes		Yes	

CR = composite reliability = $(\sum \text{ of standardized loadings})^2 / (\sum \text{ of standardized loadings})^2 + \sum \text{ of } \epsilon_j$.

AVE = average variance extracted = $\sum \text{ of } (\text{standardized loadings})^2 / \sum \text{ of } (\text{standardized loadings})^2 + \sum \text{ of } \epsilon_j$.

CV = convergent validity (AVE $>.50$).

DV = discriminant validity = $\text{AVE} / (\text{Corr})^2 >.1$.

(Corr)² = highest (Corr)² between factors of interest and remaining factors.

11.2. Validity of NBOS

Whilst it is important to assess the reliability of a measure, validity should also be established to ensure that the scale in fact measures what it purports to measure (Hair et al., 1998). Several aspects are considered, namely convergent, discriminant, nomological, criterion and content validity.

11.2.1. Convergent and discriminant validity

The average variance extracted (AVE) was calculated for each of the factors and used to evaluate the convergent and discriminant validity of the scale. If the shared variance accounts for 0.50 or more of the total variance, then convergent validity can be assumed. Similarly, discriminant validity is evident when the AVE for each construct is greater than the squared correlation between that construct and any other construct in the model (Fornell and Larcker, 1981). The results are presented in Table 4, which attest to both the convergent and discriminant validity of NBO.

Factor analytic techniques can also be used to assess the discriminant validity of a scale. The underlying premise of this approach is that when items purported to measure distinct constructs are factor analyzed, they should not load together onto the same dimensions (Hinkin, 1995). In this

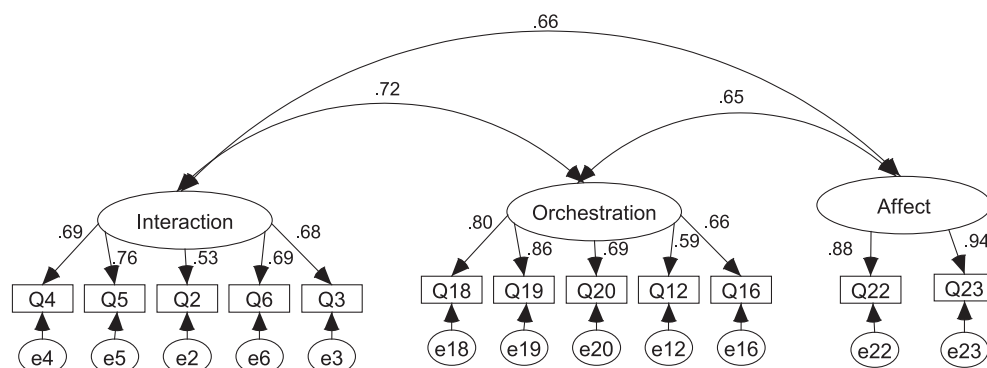


Fig. 1. Item loading for first-order, three-factor NBO scale.

study, it is proposed that NBO is distinct from market orientation. Market orientation was assessed using an adaptation of Narver and Slater's (1990) 14-item scale. These items, combined with the 12 items measuring NBO, were subjected to a principal components factor analysis with varimax rotation. This resulted in a six-factor solution, accounting for 67% of the total variance. As can be seen in Table 5, the market orientation items load on Factors 1, 4 and 5, while the NBO items load on Factors 2 and 3. The sixth factor is comprised of one market orientation and one NBO item. Although items MO10 and NBO22 also load relatively highly on Factors 3 and 5, respectively, the distinction between NBO and market orientation is quite apparent, indicating that the two constructs are in fact unique. As such, these results provide further evidence of the discriminant validity of NBOS.

11.2.2. Nomological validity

Nomological validity assesses the relationship between theoretical constructs (Malhotra et al., 1996). This involves identifying theoretically supported relationships from prior research and then assessing whether the scale has corresponding relationships (Hair et al., 1998). Drawing on Clark and Marshall's (1981) theory of mutual knowledge, we can surmise that effective brand management enables a firm to generate and sustain a shared sense of brand meaning with its stakeholders. Such organizations endeavor to identify stakeholder needs and satisfy expectations by providing unique and relevant brands. Furthermore, they have systems in place to monitor prevailing brand perceptions and are able to adjust a brand's marketing programs to reinforce or change these beliefs. Organizations that effectively manage their brands are more likely to build stronger brands, which will subsequently enhance organizational performance (Aaker and Jacobson, 1994; Keller, 2000). From this perspective, brand-oriented organizations should be in a better position to deliver satisfaction to stakeholders and achieve superior performance.

We used two subjective measures of organizational performance to assess the nomological validity of NBOS. The first related to respondents' perceptions of an organization's ability to serve stakeholders better compared to competitors and the second, to their ability to achieve both short- and long-term objectives. The three brand orientation dimensions were formed by computing the mean scores for items that constituted each factor. These were then regressed onto the two performance measures. As can be seen in Table 6a and b, both regression models are significant. The first analysis (Table 6a), where the dependent measure relates to perceived ability to serve stakeholders better, produces a significant R^2 of .305 ($P < .001$). Interestingly, only two of the three NBO dimensions (interaction and orchestration) are significant predictors of an organization's ability to provide superior service to stakeholders. The result of the second multiple regression analysis is shown in Table 6b. The R^2 of .327 (at $P < .001$) suggests that a significant proportion of the vari-

ation in an organization's ability to achieve its short- and long-term goals is accounted for by NBO. Furthermore, all three NBO dimensions are significant predictors of goal achievement. It is important to note that this analysis is used primarily to determine the nomological validity of the scale, rather than the predictive powers of the independent variables. As such, given the significant relationship between NBO and organizational performance, it can be surmised that nomological validity of NBOS has been established.

11.2.3. Criterion validity

The criterion validity of an instrument is established if it performs as expected in relation to other variables selected as meaningful criteria. The criterion validity of NBOS was assessed through a multiple regression of the three dimensions against an independent overall measure of brand management effectiveness. As can be seen in Table 7, the analysis produces an adjusted R^2 of .567 ($P < .001$). Furthermore, interaction, orchestration and affect all have a significant impact on the criterion variable. These results provide compelling evidence of criterion validity for NBOS. However, it is worth noting that we have only assessed concurrent-criterion validity.

11.2.4. Content validity

Content validity assesses the extent to which individual scale items cover the range of meanings included in the concept (Babbie, 1992; Hair et al., 1998). A one-way ANOVA was used to examine the relationship between the mean scores for each NBO dimension and respondents' ratings of the overall measure of brand management effectiveness. As can be seen in Table 8, there appears to be a strong positive relationship between perceptions of the overall effectiveness of an organization's brand management practices and the evaluation of the individual dimensions. That is, the higher the respondents rate the overall effectiveness of the organization's brand management practices, the higher the average rating of the individual NBO dimensions. Thus, it can be accepted that NBOS possesses content validity.

11.3. Generalizability of NBOS

Finally, the dependability of the scale for comparing brand orientation across nonprofit organizations in diverse sectors and in assessing the effectiveness of an organization's brand management practices was assessed. Through a variance component analysis, we identified the extent to which differences in the nature of organizations, scale items, NBO components, organizational size and nonprofit sector contributed to variation in brand orientation across nonprofit firms. Variance components were estimated using the maximum likelihood method available in SPSS (Finn and Kayande, 1997). Organizations nested in industry and items nested in components were treated as random factors, while organizational size

Table 5

Discriminant validity: factor analysis on NBO and MO items

Total variance explained									
Component	Initial eigenvalues			Extraction sums of squared loadings			Rotation sums of squared loadings		
	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %	Total	% of variance	Cumulative %
1	10.25	39.43	39.43	10.25	39.43	39.43	4.09	15.73	15.73
2	2.10	47.52	47.52	2.10	8.09	47.52	3.78	14.55	30.28
3	1.60	53.69	53.69	1.60	6.17	53.69	3.47	13.33	43.61
4	1.26	58.55	58.55	1.26	4.86	58.55	2.72	10.44	54.05
5	1.09	62.74	62.74	1.09	4.19	62.74	2.18	8.38	62.43
6	1.02	66.65	66.65	1.02	3.91	66.65	1.10	4.22	66.65

Rotated component matrix

	Component					
	1	2	3	4	5	6
MO-9 Business strategies are driven by increasing value for stakeholders	.801					
MO-3 Our objectives and strategies are driven by the creation of stakeholder satisfaction	.753					
MO-8 Business functions are integrated to serve market needs	.687					
MO-7 Competitive strategies are based on understanding stakeholder needs	.682					
MO-1 Our commitment to serving stakeholder needs is closely monitored	.587					
MO-10 Stakeholder satisfaction is frequently assessed	.566		.533			
NBO-18 Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage consumers directly to use our products/services		.827				
NBO-19 Design our integrated marketing activities to encourage our suppliers, distributors and other key stakeholders to promote our products/services to consumers		.737				
NBO-12 Develop marketing programs that send consistent messages about our brand to our stakeholders		.677				
NBO-20 Ensure that managers within the organization are aware of all of the marketing activities that involve the brand		.633				
NBO-16 Create a brand/subbrand structure that is well thought out and understood by our staff		.618				
NBO-6 Keep “in touch” with current market conditions		.503				
NBO-5 Keep “in touch” with our stakeholders’ needs			.757			
NBO-3 Have a system in place for getting stakeholders’ comments to the people who can instigate change			.719			
NBO-22 Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders dislike about the brand			.620		.514	
NBO-23 Develop detailed knowledge of what our stakeholders like about the brand			.579			
NBO-4 Invest adequate resources in product/service improvements that provide better value to our stakeholders			.509			
MO-6 Information about stakeholders is freely communicated throughout the company				.740		
MO-5 Top management regularly visits important stakeholders				.734		
MO-2 Our staff share information about competitors				.606		
MO-14 Stakeholders are targeted when we have an opportunity for competitive advantage				.462		
MO-12 Top management regularly discusses competitors’ strengths and weaknesses					.733	
MO-13 Our managers understand how employees can contribute to value for stakeholders					.564	
MO-11 Close attention is given to after “sales” service					.508	
NBO-2 Focus on creating a positive product/service experience for our stakeholders						.716
MO-4 We achieve rapid response to competitive actions						– .473

Extraction method: principal component analysis with varimax rotation; rotation converged in six iterations. For clarity of interpretation, factor loadings < .45 are suppressed.

Table 6
Nomological validity of NBOS

(a) Multiple regression—NBO factors (x) against ability to serve stakeholders better (y)

Model summary ^a					
Model	<i>R</i>	<i>R</i> ²	Adj. <i>R</i> ²	Standard error of estimate	Durbin–Watson
1	.557	.311	.305	1.05	2.116
ANOVA ^b					
Model	Sum of squares	<i>df</i>	Mean square	<i>F</i>	Significance
1 Regression	193.18	3	64.39	58.31	.000
Residual	428.49	388	1.10		
Total	621.67	391			
Coefficients					
Model	Unstandardized coefficients	Standardized coefficients	<i>t</i>	Significance	
	<i>B</i>	S.E.	β		
1 (Constant)	1.625	.285		5.67	.000
Interaction	.539	.068	.436	7.95	.000
Orchestration	.199	.054	.197	3.70	.000
Affect	–.052	.042	–.019	–.365	.715

(b) Multiple regression—NBO factors (x) against ability to achieve goals (y)

Model summary ^a					
Model	<i>R</i>	<i>R</i> ²	Adj. <i>R</i> ²	Standard error of estimate	Durbin–Watson
1	.576	.332	.327	1.01	2.142
ANOVA ^c					
Model	Sum of squares	<i>df</i>	Mean square	<i>F</i>	Significance
1 Regression	200.01	3	66.67	64.78	.000
Residual	402.37	391	1.03		
Total	602.38	394			
Coefficients					
Model	Unstandardized coefficients	Standardized coefficients	<i>t</i>	Significance	
	<i>B</i>	S.E.	β		
1 (Constant)	1.731	.279		6.21	.000
Interaction	.503	.065	.412	7.76	.000
Orchestration	.152	.051	.154	2.97	.003
Affect	.075	.040	.098	1.86	.064

^a Predictors: (constant), interaction, orchestration, affect.

^b Dependent variable: ability to serve stakeholders better than competitors.

^c Dependent variable: ability to achieve short- and long-term goals and objectives.

was treated as a fixed factor. Furthermore, organizations nested in industry were crossed with items nested in components. Cases that contained any missing values were deleted from the data set. In effect, 344 organiza-

Table 7

Criterion validity of NBOS: multiple regression—NBO factors (x) against overall brand management effectiveness (y)

Model summary ^a					
Model	<i>R</i>	<i>R</i> ²	Adj. <i>R</i> ²	Standard error of estimate	Durbin–Watson
1	.755	.570	.567	.981	1.77
ANOVA ^b					
Model	Sum of squares	<i>df</i>	Mean square	<i>F</i>	Significance
1 Regression	503.92	3	167.97	174.71	.000
Residual	379.77	395	.961		
Total	883.69	398			
Coefficients					
Model	Unstandardized coefficients	Standardized coefficients	<i>t</i>	Significance	
	<i>B</i>	S.E.	β		
1 (Constant)	–.456	.261		–.697	.486
Interaction	.354	.062	.245	5.75	.000
Orchestration	.533	.049	.454	10.86	.000
Affect	.177	.039	.191	4.55	.000

^a Predictors: (constant), interaction, orchestration, affect.

^b Dependent variable: overall BM effectiveness.

tions nested in six sectors rated 12 items measuring NBO nested in three components.

As can be seen in Table 9, organizations nested in industry, scale items nested in NBO components and the NBO components themselves account for the majority of variance in the data. This suggests that when different levels of brand orientation are observed between organizations in

Table 8

Content validity: one-way ANOVA of three NBO components and overall brand management effectiveness

ANOVA					
	Sum of squares	<i>df</i>	Mean square	<i>F</i>	Significance
Orchestration					
Between groups	268.87	2	134.44	141.47	.000
Within groups	378.26	398	.950		
Total	647.10	400			
Interaction					
Between groups	121.14	2	60.57	77.09	.000
Within groups	312.73	398	.786		
Total	433.87	400			
Affect					
Between groups	274.48	2	137.24	70.64	.000
Within groups	773.29	398	1.943		
Total	1047.77	400			
Overall BM effectiveness	<i>N</i>	Orchestration	Interaction	Affect	
Not effective	121	3.43	4.44	2.83	
Somewhat effective	133	4.59	5.28	3.87	
Very effective	147	5.55	5.78	4.87	

Table 9
Generalizability of NBOS

Alternate decision studies						
Sector			1	6	6	6
Item			1	12	12	12
Component			1	3	3	3
Organizations			1	344	344	344
Source of variation	Variance	% Total variance	Estimated variance components ^a			
			Organization ^b		Item ^c	Component ^d
Organization (sector)	.858	30.1	.858	.858	.858	.858
Sector	.010	0.3	.010	.010	.010	.010
Component	.225	7.9	.225	.225	.225	.225
Item (component) ^d	.180	6.3	.180	.063	.180	.005
Sector×Component ^d	.000	0.0	.000	.000	.000	.000
Sector×Item (component) ^c	.003	0.1	.003	.003	.000	.003
Organization (sector)×Component ^{b,d}	.481	16.9	.481	.160	.481	.000
Residual ^{b,c,d}	1.093	38.4		.005	.000	.000
Total	2.850	100				
Relative error (organization)			1.574	.165		
G-coefficient (organization)			.353	.838		
Relative error (items)			1.09		.000	
G-coefficient (items)			.141		.996	
Relative error (NBO components)			1.754			.006
G-coefficient (NBO components)			.114			.976

^a Represents the estimated variance component for the random effect divided by the number of levels of the factors (other than the object of measurement) in the random effect (Finn and Kayande, 1997).

^b The variance components for the interaction between the object of measurement (i.e., organizations) with the facets of generalization (i.e., components).

^c The variance components for the interaction between the object of measurement (i.e., items) with the facets of generalization (i.e., sector).

^d The variance components for the interaction between the object of measurement (i.e., components) with the facets of generalization (i.e., items, sectors and organizations).

different sectors, it is a result of variations between the organizations themselves rather than differences arising from the sector in which they operate. However, it is important to note that given that the CEOs of each organization reported on the brand management practices within their own organization, respondents are confounded with the organization. As such, it is difficult to ascertain whether differences observed in responses are a result of true differences between organizations or the nature and characteristics of respondents themselves. Nonetheless, the results do indicate that the sector in which a nonprofit organization operates has a limited effect on brand orientation and that any differences observed are a result of some other factor. In this case, differences are a result of the respondent/organization and the items/components used to measure brand orientation.

Based on the data gathered, a *G*-coefficient, which is analogous to a reliability coefficient (Cronbach et al., 1972), can be calculated for comparing brand orientation across nonprofit organizations in different nonprofit sectors as well as for comparing practices within the organization itself. The first part of the table shows the *G*-coefficients generated if one organization in one category rated the brand orientation of their firm based on one item. This results in *G*-coefficients of .353, .141 and .114 for com-

paring organizations, items and NBO components, respectively. The second part of Table 9 (see “Alternate decision studies”) shows the conditions that prevailed in the current study. In this instance, when the scale is used to compare brand orientation across nonprofit organizations in different sectors, where the object of measurement becomes the organization itself, the associated *G*-coefficient is .838. Similarly, when the scale is used to identify the brand management practices within an organization that are in need of attention, the object of measurement becomes either the items or NBO components, which results in *G*-coefficients of .996 and .976, respectively. Thus, given the values are above the normally acceptable level of .70 (Nunnally, 1978), it can be surmised that NBOS is a generalizable measure of NBO. That is, it can be used to compare brand orientation across nonprofit organizations in different sectors, with caution, and as an internal diagnostic tool.

12. Discussion

This study has provided new insight into the salient brand management practices of nonprofit organizations. Building on the work of Hankinson (2001, 2002), we have

developed a valid, reliable and generalizable measure of brand orientation for nonprofit organizations across diverse sectors. To this end, we operationalized Keller's (2000) BRC and modified the statements to reflect the idiosyncrasies of the nonprofit sector. Three underlying dimensions were identified, which have been labeled interaction, orchestration and affect. Nonprofit managers must ensure that all brand-related activities undertaken within the firm are fully coordinated to maximize market awareness and performance. Furthermore, it is equally important for nonprofit organizations to be aware of the needs of their stakeholders and understand how these are changing as a result of internal and external pressures. Finally, consideration needs to be given to developing an understanding of what aspects of the organization's brand(s) are most liked and disliked by stakeholders. Combined, these activities can contribute positively to the overall performance of nonprofit organizations, particularly in terms of enabling them to serve their stakeholders better and achieve both long and short-term objectives. Thus, it seems that certain commercial branding principles are transferable to nonprofit organizations. However, it may well be that certain practices are immediately transferable, while others may only be transferable in the medium term, if at all. Specifically, we are referring to the fact that through the rigorous process of scale development, refinement, testing and retesting, we have effectively adapted and reduced Keller's (2000) original 37 items to 12 items in the final NBO scale. Our rationale for doing this is that brand management is a relatively new concept in the nonprofit sector. While it has been practiced for well over 50 years at a sophisticated level in the commercial sector, the practice is still very much in a state of infancy in the nonprofit sector. In fact, we would argue that it is presently evolving and that over time, more of Keller's original items may yet become applicable. Accordingly, we anticipate future researchers to, in due course, perhaps expand on the present scale.

Overall, the results provide evidence of the validity, reliability and generalizability of the NBO scale. As a managerial tool, NBOS can be used to guide the internal and external brand management activities of nonprofit organizations, as well as to benchmark current practices. That is, managers of nonprofit organizations can use NBOS to compare their brand management practices against other organizations operating in a range of sectors or to identify deficiencies in their current brand management practices. This will enable an organization to improve the overall effectiveness of their branding activities and enhance its relative performance. From an academic perspective, NBOS provides the mechanism by which to measure brand orientation in nonprofit organizations and explore relationships and associations with other constructs. For instance, NBOS can be used to examine the potential antecedents to and consequences of pursuing a brand orientation. Furthermore, this study has contributed to the existing body of knowledge on brands and their management. As an extension of

Hankinson's (2000) work, it provides a step forward in developing deeper empirical insights into the nature and scope of NBO. In so doing, Keller's (2000) BRC has successfully been operationalized and adapted to the nonprofit sector. This lends some support to the view that nonprofit organizations can potentially learn much about branding from their commercial counterparts (Roberts-Wray, 1994; Tapp, 1996).

13. Limitations and directions for future research

Several limitations of this study are noted. First, given that commercial databases have been used to identify and select nonprofit organizations in Australia, it is possible that some organizations may have been omitted from the sample frame. Second, NBOS was based on Keller's (2000) BRC, which raises the question of whether this checklist fully captures the nuances of branding in nonprofit organizations. Third, the use of mail surveys brings with it several known limitations, such as nonresponse and survey bias.

Following is an agenda for ongoing research in the area. First, research could be directed toward expanding NBOS to include additional statements from other brand orientation inventories, as well as concepts that may be perhaps unique to the nonprofit sector. Second, future researchers may wish to identify the key antecedents to and consequences of brand orientation within nonprofit organizations. Third, it may be useful to identify the challenges and barriers that prohibit nonprofit organizations from pursuing a brand orientation as their guiding business philosophy. Fourth, researchers could undertake a comparison of brand management practices of nonprofit organizations across cultures or, alternatively, a comparison between for-profit and nonprofit organizations. Fifth, the relationship between brand management effectiveness and resource acquisition could be examined; that is, the question of whether organizations that are more effective at managing their brands are able to acquire a greater proportion of the "funding pie" can be addressed. Finally, qualitative research could be used to elicit deeper insights into how strong nonprofit brands are in fact created and managed. Moreover, such research may be useful in developing an understanding of whether nonprofit practitioners view brand management in the same way as their commercial counterparts. That is, to identify how comfortable nonprofit practitioners feel in describing their organization's activities in commercial marketing/branding terms and the reasons behind any potential discomfort in this regard. In conclusion, this study has provided some useful insights into the brand management practices of nonprofit organizations. Specifically, it has resulted in the development, application and verification of a reliable, valid and generalizable measure of NBO. We hope our results will draw further attention to this important yet underresearched domain.

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